

Topology MATM36: Course Summary of Important Results

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Metric Spaces

Definition 1. Let X be a topological space and $A \subseteq X$. A point $x \in X$ is called an adherent point of A if every open neighbourhood U of x satisfies

$$U \cap A \neq \emptyset.$$

In the special case where X is a metric space with metric d , this is equivalent to requiring that for every $r > 0$,

$$B_r(x) \cap A \neq \emptyset.$$

Definition 2. Let X be a topological space and $A \subseteq X$. The set A is called dense in X if every nonempty open set $U \subseteq X$ satisfies

$$U \cap A \neq \emptyset.$$

Equivalently, A is dense in X if $\overline{A} = X$.

Definition 3. Let X be a topological space and $A \subseteq X$. The set A is called nowhere dense in X if

$$\text{int}(\overline{A}) = \emptyset.$$

Definition 4. A topological space X is separable if: $\exists D \subseteq X : D$ countable and dense.

Baire Category Theorem

Theorem 1 (Baire Category Theorem). Let (X, d) be a complete metric space and let $\{U_n\}_{n=1}^{\infty}$ be a sequence of dense open subsets of X . Then $\bigcap_{n=1}^{\infty} U_n$ is dense in X .

Proof. Fix a nonempty open ball $B(x, \varepsilon) \subset X$.

Since U_1 is dense and open, choose $y_1 \in U_1 \cap B(x, \varepsilon)$ and $r_1 > 0$ such that

$$\overline{B}(y_1, r_1) \subset U_1 \cap B(x, \varepsilon), \quad r_1 < 1.$$

Inductively, having chosen y_n, r_n , use that U_{n+1} is dense and open to pick $y_{n+1} \in U_{n+1} \cap B(y_n, r_n)$ and $r_{n+1} > 0$ such that

$$\overline{B}(y_{n+1}, r_{n+1}) \subset U_{n+1} \cap B(y_n, r_n), \quad r_{n+1} < \frac{1}{n+1}.$$

Then the closed balls are nested:

$$\overline{B}(y_{n+1}, r_{n+1}) \subset \overline{B}(y_n, r_n) \subset \cdots \subset \overline{B}(y_1, r_1) \subset B(x, \varepsilon),$$

and for $m > n$ we have $y_m \in B(y_n, r_n)$, hence $d(y_m, y_n) < r_n \rightarrow 0$. Thus (y_n) is Cauchy, so by completeness $y_n \rightarrow y \in X$.

For each fixed n , all tails of the sequence lie in $\overline{B}(y_n, r_n)$, so the limit satisfies $y \in \overline{B}(y_n, r_n) \subset U_n$. Hence $y \in \bigcap_{n=1}^{\infty} U_n$, and also $y \in \overline{B}(y_1, r_1) \subset B(x, \varepsilon)$. Therefore

$$B(x, \varepsilon) \cap \bigcap_{n=1}^{\infty} U_n \neq \emptyset,$$

so the intersection is dense. □

Remark 1. From the definitions it follows that a set $B \subseteq X$ satisfies $\text{int}(B) = \emptyset \iff X \setminus B$ is dense in X . In particular, if A is nowhere dense, then $X \setminus \overline{A}$ is open and dense in X .

Corollary 1. Let (X, d) be a complete metric space and let $\{F_n\}_{n=1}^{\infty}$ be a sequence of nowhere dense subsets of X . Then

$$\text{int}\left(\bigcup_{n=1}^{\infty} F_n\right) = \emptyset.$$

Proof. Since F_n is nowhere dense, $U_n := X \setminus \overline{F_n}$ is open and dense; by Baire, $\bigcap_{n=1}^{\infty} U_n = \bigcup_{n=1}^{\infty} \overline{F_n}$ is dense, hence nonempty in every nonempty open set. □

Finite Products of Metric Spaces

Definition 5. Let (X_k, d_k) , $k = 1, \dots, n$, be metric spaces and set

$$X = X_1 \times \cdots \times X_n.$$

A metric d on X is said to be a product metric if convergence in (X, d) is coordinatewise,

$$x^{(m)} = (x_1^{(m)}, \dots, x_n^{(m)}) \rightarrow x = (x_1, \dots, x_n)$$

in X if and only if for each $k = 1, \dots, n$,

$$x_k^{(m)} \rightarrow x_k \quad \text{in } X_k.$$

Theorem 2. Suppose d is a metric on $X = X_1 \times \cdots \times X_n$ satisfying the above coordinatewise convergence property. Then the open sets in (X, d) are precisely the unions of product sets

$$U_1 \times \cdots \times U_n,$$

where each U_k is open in X_k .

Proof. First, if $E_k \subset X_k$ is closed for each k , then

$$E_1 \times \cdots \times E_n$$

is closed in X . Indeed, if $x^{(m)} \in E_1 \times \cdots \times E_n$ and $x^{(m)} \rightarrow x$ in X , then by coordinatewise convergence, $x_k^{(m)} \rightarrow x_k$ in X_k . Since each E_k is closed, $x_k \in E_k$, hence $x \in E_1 \times \cdots \times E_n$.

Now let $U_k \subset X_k$ be open. Then

$$V^{(k)} := X_1 \times \cdots \times X_{k-1} \times U_k \times X_{k+1} \times \cdots \times X_n$$

is open in X , since its complement is of the form

$$X_1 \times \cdots \times (X_k \setminus U_k) \times \cdots \times X_n,$$

which is closed by the previous remark. Hence

$$U_1 \times \cdots \times U_n = \bigcap_{k=1}^n V^{(k)}$$

is open in X , and any union of such products is open.

Conversely, let $U \subset X$ be open and $x = (x_1, \dots, x_n) \in U$. We show there exist open sets $U_k \subset X_k$ such that

$$x \in U_1 \times \cdots \times U_n \subset U.$$

Suppose not. Then for each $m \in \mathbb{N}$,

$$B_{X_1}(x_1, 1/m) \times \cdots \times B_{X_n}(x_n, 1/m) \not\subset U.$$

Thus there exists $x^{(m)} \notin U$ with

$$d_k(x_k^{(m)}, x_k) < \frac{1}{m}, \quad k = 1, \dots, n.$$

Then $x_k^{(m)} \rightarrow x_k$ for each k , hence $x^{(m)} \rightarrow x$ in X . Since $X \setminus U$ is closed and each $x^{(m)} \in X \setminus U$, we conclude $x \in X \setminus U$, a contradiction. Therefore such open sets U_k exist, and U is a union of product sets. $\square$

Theorem 3 (5.1). *For a metric space X , the following are equivalent:*

- (i) X is compact;
- (ii) every sequence in X has a convergent subsequence;
- (iii) X is complete and totally bounded.

Proof outline with key implications. We prove the cycle of implications

$$(i) \Rightarrow (ii) \Rightarrow (iii) \Rightarrow (ii) \Rightarrow (i).$$

Implication (i) $\Rightarrow$ (ii). Assume X is compact. Let (y_j) be a sequence in X . We show that (y_j) has a convergent subsequence.

First claim that there exists $x \in X$ such that every ball $B(x, \varepsilon)$ contains infinitely many terms of the sequence. Suppose not. Then for each $x \in X$ there exists $\varepsilon(x) > 0$ such that $B(x, \varepsilon(x))$ contains only finitely many terms of (y_j) . The family

$$\{B(x, \varepsilon(x)) : x \in X\}$$

is an open cover of X . By compactness, there is a finite subcover

$$X = B(x_1, \varepsilon(x_1)) \cup \cdots \cup B(x_m, \varepsilon(x_m)).$$

But each ball contains only finitely many terms of the sequence, so altogether only finitely many terms of (y_j) lie in X , which is impossible. Hence such an x exists.

Now choose inductively indices

$$j_1 < j_2 < j_3 < \cdots$$

such that

$$y_{j_n} \in B(x, 1/n).$$

Then $y_{j_n} \rightarrow x$, so (y_j) has a convergent subsequence.

Comment. The key idea is that compactness prevents the sequence from avoiding every point at every scale.

Implication $(ii) \Rightarrow (iii)$. Assume every sequence in X has a convergent subsequence. We prove first that X is complete and then that it is totally bounded.

Completeness. Let (x_n) be a Cauchy sequence in X . By (ii), it has a convergent subsequence

$$x_{n_k} \rightarrow x.$$

A standard lemma says that if a Cauchy sequence has a convergent subsequence, then the whole sequence converges to the same limit. Hence $(x_n) \rightarrow x$, and X is complete.

Total boundedness. Fix $\varepsilon > 0$. We show that X can be covered by finitely many open balls of radius ε .

Suppose not. Choose $y_1 \in X$. Since $B(y_1, \varepsilon) \neq X$, choose

$$y_2 \in X \setminus B(y_1, \varepsilon).$$

Having chosen $y_1, \dots, y_n$, if

$$X \neq \bigcup_{j=1}^n B(y_j, \varepsilon),$$

choose

$$y_{n+1} \in X \setminus \bigcup_{j=1}^n B(y_j, \varepsilon).$$

Then

$$d(y_i, y_j) \geq \varepsilon \quad (i \neq j).$$

So the sequence (y_j) has no Cauchy subsequence, hence no convergent subsequence, contradicting (ii). Therefore the process must terminate after finitely many steps, and X is covered by finitely many balls of radius ε . Thus X is totally bounded.

Comment. This is one of the most important implications: failure of total boundedness lets one construct an ε -separated sequence, and such a sequence can never have a convergent subsequence.

Implication $(iii) \Rightarrow (ii)$. Assume X is complete and totally bounded. Let (x_j) be a sequence in X . We sketch why (x_j) has a convergent subsequence.

The key intermediate result is:

In a totally bounded metric space, every sequence has a Cauchy subsequence.

To prove this, for each $k \geq 1$ cover X by finitely many balls of radius $1/k$. Since there are infinitely many terms of the sequence and only finitely many such balls, one ball of radius 1 contains infinitely many terms; pass to that subsequence. Then one ball of radius $1/2$ contains infinitely many terms of this subsequence; pass again. Continue inductively. This gives nested subsequences, and taking the diagonal subsequence produces a sequence (y_n) such that for every k , all sufficiently large terms of (y_n) lie in a ball of radius $1/k$. Hence (y_n) is Cauchy.

Since X is complete, every Cauchy sequence converges. Therefore (x_j) has a convergent subsequence.

Comment. This is the most technical part: total boundedness gives finer and finer finite covers, and the diagonal procedure forces the chosen subsequence to become Cauchy.

Implication $(ii) \Rightarrow (i)$. Assume every sequence in X has a convergent subsequence. Since by $(ii) \Rightarrow (iii)$ the space is totally bounded, it is separable; and every separable metric space is second-countable. Hence every open cover has a countable subcover. It therefore suffices to prove that every countable open cover has a finite subcover.

Let

$$X = \bigcup_{n=1}^{\infty} U_n$$

be a countable open cover. Suppose no finite subfamily covers X . Then for each m choose

$$x_m \in X \setminus (U_1 \cup \cdots \cup U_m).$$

By (ii), the sequence (x_m) has a convergent subsequence

$$x_{m_k} \rightarrow x \in X.$$

Since the U_n cover X , there exists r such that $x \in U_r$. As U_r is open and $x_{m_k} \rightarrow x$, we have $x_{m_k} \in U_r$ for all sufficiently large k . But whenever $m_k \geq r$, the choice of x_{m_k} gives

$$x_{m_k} \notin U_1 \cup \cdots \cup U_{m_k},$$

hence in particular $x_{m_k} \notin U_r$, a contradiction. Therefore some finite subfamily already covers X , so X is compact.

Comment. The contradiction comes from choosing points left out by larger and larger finite parts of the cover, then using sequential compactness to force a limit point into one of the open sets.

We have proved

$$(i) \Rightarrow (ii) \Rightarrow (iii) \Rightarrow (ii) \Rightarrow (i),$$

so the three conditions are equivalent. □

Theorem 4 (Heine–Borel Theorem). *For a subspace $E \subseteq \mathbb{R}^n$, the following are equivalent:*

(i) E is compact;

(ii) every sequence in E has a convergent subsequence with limit in E ;

(iii) E is closed and bounded.

Proof. By the general compactness theorem for metric spaces, for any metric space the following are equivalent: compactness, sequential compactness, and completeness together with total boundedness.

Now let $E \subseteq \mathbb{R}^n$.

If E is closed and bounded, then E is complete (since a subspace of $\mathbb{R}^n$ is complete if and only if it is closed) and totally bounded (since a subset of $\mathbb{R}^n$ is totally bounded if and only if it is bounded). Hence E is compact, and therefore every sequence in E has a convergent subsequence.

Conversely, if E is compact, then by the same general theorem E is complete and totally bounded. Since E is a subspace of $\mathbb{R}^n$, completeness implies that E is closed, and total boundedness implies that E is bounded. Thus E is closed and bounded.

Therefore (i), (ii), and (iii) are equivalent. $\square$

Theorem 5 (Uniform Continuity Theorem). *Let (X, d) and (Y, ρ) be metric spaces, and suppose that X is compact. Then every continuous function $f : X \rightarrow Y$ is uniformly continuous.*

Proof. Suppose f is not uniformly continuous. Then there exists $\varepsilon > 0$ such that for every $m \in \mathbb{N}$ there are points $x_m, z_m \in X$ with

$$d(x_m, z_m) < \frac{1}{m} \quad \text{but} \quad \rho(f(x_m), f(z_m)) \geq \varepsilon.$$

Since X is compact, the sequence (x_m) has a convergent subsequence; passing to that subsequence, we may assume

$$x_m \rightarrow x \in X.$$

Because $d(x_m, z_m) \rightarrow 0$, also

$$z_m \rightarrow x.$$

By continuity of f at x ,

$$f(x_m) \rightarrow f(x) \quad \text{and} \quad f(z_m) \rightarrow f(x).$$

Hence

$$\rho(f(x_m), f(z_m)) \leq \rho(f(x_m), f(x)) + \rho(f(x), f(z_m)) \rightarrow 0,$$

which contradicts

$$\rho(f(x_m), f(z_m)) \geq \varepsilon.$$

Therefore f is uniformly continuous. $\square$

Theorem 6 (Theorem 7.5). *Let X and Y be normed spaces and let $T : X \rightarrow Y$ be linear. The following are equivalent:*

- (i) T is continuous;
- (ii) T is continuous at 0;
- (iii) T is bounded, i.e. $\exists C > 0 : \|T(x)\| \leq C\|x\|$ for all $x \in X$.

Proof. (i) $\Rightarrow$ (ii) is immediate.

(ii) $\Rightarrow$ (iii): Since T is continuous at 0, there exists $\delta > 0$ such that

$$\|x\| \leq \delta \Rightarrow \|T(x)\| \leq 1.$$

For arbitrary $x \neq 0$, set $y = \frac{\delta}{\|x\|}x$, so $\|y\| = \delta$ and hence

$$\|T(y)\| \leq 1.$$

By linearity,

$$\|T(x)\| = \frac{\|x\|}{\delta} \|T(y)\| \leq \frac{1}{\delta} \|x\|.$$

Thus T is bounded.

(iii) $\Rightarrow$ (i): If $\|T(x)\| \leq C\|x\|$, then for all $x, x_0 \in X$,

$$\|T(x) - T(x_0)\| = \|T(x - x_0)\| \leq C\|x - x_0\|,$$

so T is Lipschitz, hence continuous. $\square$

Theorem 7 (Principle of Uniform Boundedness). *Let X and Y be Banach spaces and let $\{T_\alpha\}_{\alpha \in A}$ be a family of continuous linear operators $T_\alpha : X \rightarrow Y$. Suppose that for each $x \in X$,*

$$\sup_{\alpha \in A} \|T_\alpha x\| < \infty.$$

Then

$$\sup_{\alpha \in A} \|T_\alpha\| < \infty.$$

Proof. For $n \in \mathbb{N}$, define

$$E_n := \left\{ x \in X : \sup_{\alpha \in A} \|T_\alpha x\| \leq n \right\}.$$

Then each E_n is closed, $E_n \subseteq E_{n+1}$, and by assumption

$$X = \bigcup_{n=1}^{\infty} E_n.$$

By the Baire Category Theorem, some E_m has nonempty interior. Thus there exist $x_0 \in X$ and $\varepsilon > 0$ such that

$$B(x_0, \varepsilon) \subseteq E_m.$$

Let $c := \sup_{\alpha \in A} \|T_\alpha x_0\| < \infty$. If $\|x\| < 1$, then $x_0 + \varepsilon x \in E_m$, hence

$$\|T_\alpha(x_0 + \varepsilon x)\| \leq m.$$

Thus

$$\varepsilon \|T_\alpha x\| = \|T_\alpha(x_0 + \varepsilon x) - T_\alpha(x_0)\| \leq m + c.$$

Therefore

$$\|T_\alpha x\| \leq \frac{m+c}{\varepsilon} \quad \text{for all } \|x\| < 1.$$

Hence $\|T_\alpha\| \leq \frac{m+c}{\varepsilon}$ for all $\alpha \in A$, and so

$$\sup_{\alpha \in A} \|T_\alpha\| < \infty.$$

$\square$

Topologies

Definition 6. Let X be a set. A topology on X is a collection $\mathcal{T} \subseteq \mathcal{P}(X)$ of subsets of X such that

(i) $\emptyset \in \mathcal{T}$ and $X \in \mathcal{T}$,

(ii) if $\{U_\alpha\}_{\alpha \in I} \subseteq \mathcal{T}$, then

$$\bigcup_{\alpha \in I} U_\alpha \in \mathcal{T},$$

(iii) if $U_1, \dots, U_n \in \mathcal{T}$, then

$$\bigcap_{i=1}^n U_i \in \mathcal{T}.$$

The pair $(X, \mathcal{T})$ is called a topological space. The sets $U \in \mathcal{T}$ are called open sets. A subset $F \subseteq X$ is called closed if its complement is open.

Separation Axioms

Definition 7 (T_0 space). A topological space $(X, \mathcal{T})$ is called a T_0 -space if for every pair of distinct points $x, y \in X$, there exists an open set $U \in \mathcal{T}$ such that

$$x \in U, y \notin U \quad \text{or} \quad y \in U, x \notin U.$$

Definition 8 (T_1 space). A topological space $(X, \mathcal{T})$ is called a T_1 -space if for every pair of distinct points $x, y \in X$, there exists an open set $U \in \mathcal{T}$ such that

$$y \in U \quad \text{and} \quad x \notin U.$$

Equivalently, $(X, \mathcal{T})$ is T_1 if and only if every singleton set $\{x\}$ is closed in X .

Definition 9 (T_2 space / Hausdorff). A topological space $(X, \mathcal{T})$ is called a T_2 -space, or Hausdorff, if for every pair of distinct points $x, y \in X$, there exist open sets $U, V \in \mathcal{T}$ such that

$$x \in U, \quad y \in V, \quad U \cap V = \emptyset.$$

Definition 10 (Regular space). A topological space $(X, \mathcal{T})$ is called regular if for every closed set $F \subseteq X$ and every point $x \in X \setminus F$, there exist open sets $U, V \in \mathcal{T}$ such that

$$x \in U, \quad F \subseteq V, \quad U \cap V = \emptyset.$$

Definition 11 (T_3 space). A topological space $(X, \mathcal{T})$ is called a T_3 -space if it is both T_1 and regular.

Definition 12 (Normal space). A topological space $(X, \mathcal{T})$ is called normal if for any two disjoint closed sets $F, G \subseteq X$, there exist open sets $U, V \in \mathcal{T}$ such that

$$F \subseteq U, \quad G \subseteq V, \quad U \cap V = \emptyset.$$

Definition 13 (T_4 space). A topological space $(X, \mathcal{T})$ is called a T_4 -space if it is both T_1 and normal.

Theorem 8. *Every compact Hausdorff space is normal. In particular, every compact Hausdorff space is a T_4 -space.*

Proof. Let $F, G \subseteq X$ be disjoint closed sets. Since X is Hausdorff, for each $x \in F$ and $y \in G$ there exist disjoint open sets $U_{x,y}$ and $V_{x,y}$ such that

$$x \in U_{x,y}, \quad y \in V_{x,y}, \quad U_{x,y} \cap V_{x,y} = \emptyset.$$

For fixed $x \in F$, the sets $\{V_{x,y}\}_{y \in G}$ form an open cover of G . Since G is closed in the compact space X , it is compact, so we may choose a finite subcover

$$G \subseteq V_{x,y_1} \cup \cdots \cup V_{x,y_n}.$$

Let

$$U_x := U_{x,y_1} \cap \cdots \cap U_{x,y_n}, \quad V_x := V_{x,y_1} \cup \cdots \cup V_{x,y_n}.$$

Then $x \in U_x$, $G \subseteq V_x$, and $U_x \cap V_x = \emptyset$.

The family $\{U_x\}_{x \in F}$ is an open cover of F . Since F is compact, choose a finite subcover

$$F \subseteq U_{x_1} \cup \cdots \cup U_{x_m}.$$

Define

$$U := U_{x_1} \cup \cdots \cup U_{x_m}, \quad V := V_{x_1} \cap \cdots \cap V_{x_m}.$$

Then U and V are open, $F \subseteq U$, $G \subseteq V$, and $U \cap V = \emptyset$. Hence X is normal. $\square$

Remark 2 (Continuity criterion in metric spaces). *Let $(X, \mathcal{T})$ be a topological space and (Y, d) a metric space. A function $f : X \rightarrow Y$ is continuous at $x \in X$ if and only if for every $\varepsilon > 0$ there exists a neighbourhood U of x such that*

$$d(f(y), f(x)) < \varepsilon \quad \text{for all } y \in U.$$

Equivalently, $f(U) \subseteq B(f(x), \varepsilon)$.

Theorem 9 (Uniform limit preserves continuity). *Let $(X, \mathcal{T})$ be a topological space and (Y, d) a metric space. Suppose (f_n) is a sequence of functions $f_n : X \rightarrow Y$ converging uniformly to $f : X \rightarrow Y$. If each f_n is continuous at $x \in X$, then f is continuous at x .*

Proof. We first recall the following characterization of continuity at a point: f is continuous at x if and only if for every $\varepsilon > 0$ there exists a neighbourhood U of x such that

$$d(f(y), f(x)) < \varepsilon \quad \text{for all } y \in U.$$

Now let $\varepsilon > 0$. By uniform convergence, there exists $N \in \mathbb{N}$ such that

$$d(f_N(y), f(y)) < \frac{\varepsilon}{3} \quad \text{for all } y \in X.$$

Since f_N is continuous at x , there exists a neighbourhood U of x such that

$$d(f_N(y), f_N(x)) < \frac{\varepsilon}{3} \quad \text{for all } y \in U.$$

Then for all $y \in U$,

$$d(f(y), f(x)) \leq d(f(y), f_N(y)) + d(f_N(y), f_N(x)) + d(f_N(x), f(x)) < \frac{\varepsilon}{3} + \frac{\varepsilon}{3} + \frac{\varepsilon}{3} = \varepsilon.$$

By the above characterization, f is continuous at x . $\square$

Theorem 10. *Every metric space (X, d) is a T_4 -space.*

Proof. First, for each $x \in X$,

$$\{x\} = \bigcap_{r>0} \overline{B(x, r)},$$

so singletons are closed and X is T_1 .

Let $E, F \subseteq X$ be disjoint closed sets. For each $x \in E$, there exists $r(x) > 0$ such that

$$B(x, r(x)) \cap F = \emptyset.$$

Similarly, for each $y \in F$, there exists $r(y) > 0$ such that

$$B(y, r(y)) \cap E = \emptyset.$$

Define

$$U := \bigcup_{x \in E} B\left(x, \frac{r(x)}{2}\right), \quad V := \bigcup_{y \in F} B\left(y, \frac{r(y)}{2}\right).$$

Then U, V are open, $E \subseteq U$, $F \subseteq V$.

Suppose $z \in U \cap V$. Then there exist $x \in E$, $y \in F$ such that

$$d(x, z) < \frac{r(x)}{2}, \quad d(y, z) < \frac{r(y)}{2}.$$

Hence

$$d(x, y) \leq d(x, z) + d(z, y) < \frac{r(x) + r(y)}{2} \leq \max\{r(x), r(y)\}.$$

Thus either $d(x, y) < r(x)$ or $d(x, y) < r(y)$, contradicting the choice of $r(x)$ or $r(y)$. Therefore $U \cap V = \emptyset$, and X is normal. $\square$

Theorem 11 (Urysohn's Lemma). *Let E and F be disjoint closed subsets of a normal space X . Then there exists a continuous function*

$$f : X \rightarrow [0, 1]$$

such that

$$f|_E = 0, \quad f|_F = 1.$$

Proof. Set $V := X \setminus F$, which is open and contains E . Using normality repeatedly, construct for each dyadic rational $r \in (0, 1)$ an open set U_r such that

$$E \subseteq U_r \subseteq V$$

and

$$\overline{U_r} \subseteq U_s \quad \text{whenever } 0 < r < s < 1.$$

Define $f : X \rightarrow [0, 1]$ by

$$f(x) = \begin{cases} 0, & x \in \bigcap_{0 < r < 1} U_r, \\ \sup\{r \in (0, 1) \cap D : x \notin U_r\}, & \text{otherwise,} \end{cases}$$

where D denotes the set of dyadic rationals in $(0, 1)$.

Then $0 \leq f \leq 1$, and since $E \subseteq U_r$ for every r , we have $f = 0$ on E . Also $U_r \subseteq X \setminus F$ for every r , so $f = 1$ on F .

To prove continuity, let $x \in X$ and $\varepsilon > 0$. Choose dyadic rationals r, s such that

$$f(x) - \varepsilon < r < f(x) < s < f(x) + \varepsilon.$$

Then $x \notin \overline{U_r}$ and $x \in U_s$. Hence

$$W := U_s \setminus \overline{U_r}$$

is an open neighbourhood of x . For every $y \in W$ we have $y \notin U_r$, so $f(y) \geq r$, and $y \in U_s$, so $f(y) \leq s$. Thus

$$r \leq f(y) \leq s,$$

and therefore

$$|f(y) - f(x)| < \varepsilon.$$

So f is continuous. □

Theorem 12 (Tietze Extension Theorem). *Let X be a normal topological space, $Y \subseteq X$ closed, and let $f : Y \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ be bounded and continuous. Then there exists a bounded continuous function $h : X \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ such that $h|_Y = f$.*

Proof. Assume $|f| \leq c_0$ on Y . Using Urysohn's Lemma, construct a continuous function $g_0 : X \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ such that

$$|g_0| \leq \frac{c_0}{3} \quad \text{on } X, \quad |f - g_0| \leq \frac{2c_0}{3} \quad \text{on } Y.$$

Inductively, having defined $g_0, \dots, g_{n-1}$, set

$$c_n := \sup_{y \in Y} |f(y) - g_0(y) - \dots - g_{n-1}(y)|.$$

Again by Urysohn, construct g_n such that

$$|g_n| \leq \frac{c_n}{3} \quad \text{on } X, \quad |f - g_0 - \dots - g_n| \leq \frac{2c_n}{3} \quad \text{on } Y.$$

Then $c_n \leq (2/3)^n c_0$ and $|g_n| \leq (2/3)^n c_0/3$.

The series $\sum g_n$ converges uniformly on X to a continuous function

$$h := \sum_{n=0}^{\infty} g_n.$$

Moreover, on Y ,

$$f = \lim_{n \rightarrow \infty} (g_0 + \dots + g_n) = h,$$

and h is bounded. Thus h is the desired extension. □

Basis & Subbasis

Definition 14. *Let X be a set. A collection $\mathcal{B}$ of subsets of X is called a basis for a topology on X if:*

- (i) *For every $x \in X$ there exists $B \in \mathcal{B}$ such that $x \in B$.*
- (ii) *If $x \in B_1 \cap B_2$ for $B_1, B_2 \in \mathcal{B}$, then there exists $B_3 \in \mathcal{B}$ such that*

$$x \in B_3 \subseteq B_1 \cap B_2.$$

Theorem 13 (Topology generated by a basis). *If $\mathcal{B}$ satisfies the two conditions above, then there exists a unique topology $\mathcal{T}$ on X whose open sets are precisely the unions of elements of $\mathcal{B}$. That is,*

$$\mathcal{T} = \left\{ \bigcup_{\alpha \in I} B_\alpha : B_\alpha \in \mathcal{B}, I \text{ arbitrary} \right\}.$$

Definition 15. *Let X be a set. A collection $\mathcal{S}$ of subsets of X is called a subbasis for a topology on X if the union of all sets in $\mathcal{S}$ equals X ,*

$$X = \bigcup_{S \in \mathcal{S}} S.$$

The topology generated by $\mathcal{S}$ is obtained by first forming the basis consisting of all finite intersections of elements of $\mathcal{S}$,

$$\mathcal{B} = \{S_1 \cap \cdots \cap S_n : S_i \in \mathcal{S}, n \in \mathbb{N}\},$$

and then taking arbitrary unions of these sets.

The topology generated by the subbasis $\mathcal{S}$ consists of all arbitrary unions of elements of this basis. That is, a set $U \subseteq X$ is open if and only if it can be written as

$$U = \bigcup_{\alpha \in I} \left(\bigcap_{i=1}^{n_\alpha} S_{\alpha,i} \right), \quad S_{\alpha,i} \in \mathcal{S}, \quad n_\alpha \in \mathbb{N}.$$

Theorem 14 (Basis criterion). *A collection $\mathcal{B}$ of subsets of X is a basis for a topology on X if and only if:*

- (i) *For every $x \in X$, there exists $B \in \mathcal{B}$ such that $x \in B$;*
- (ii) *If $B_1, B_2 \in \mathcal{B}$ and $x \in B_1 \cap B_2$, then there exists $B_3 \in \mathcal{B}$ such that*

$$x \in B_3 \subseteq B_1 \cap B_2.$$

Proof. ($\Rightarrow$) If $\mathcal{B}$ is a basis, then (i) holds since X is open, and (ii) holds since $B_1 \cap B_2$ is open and can be written as a union of basis elements.

($\Leftarrow$) Suppose (i) and (ii) hold. Let $\mathcal{T}$ be the collection of all unions of sets in $\mathcal{B}$. Then $\emptyset, X \in \mathcal{T}$ and arbitrary unions are in $\mathcal{T}$.

To show closure under finite intersections, let $U, V \in \mathcal{T}$ and $x \in U \cap V$. Then there exist $B_1, B_2 \in \mathcal{B}$ such that

$$x \in B_1 \subseteq U, \quad x \in B_2 \subseteq V.$$

By (ii), there exists $B_3 \in \mathcal{B}$ such that

$$x \in B_3 \subseteq B_1 \cap B_2 \subseteq U \cap V.$$

Hence

$$U \cap V = \bigcup_{x \in U \cap V} B_3(x),$$

so $U \cap V \in \mathcal{T}$. Thus $\mathcal{T}$ is a topology and $\mathcal{B}$ is a basis. □

Theorem 15 (Lindelöf's Theorem). *Let X be a second-countable topological space. Then every open cover of X admits a countable subcover.*

Proof. Let $\mathcal{B} = \{B_n\}_{n \in \mathbb{N}}$ be a countable basis for X , and let $\mathcal{U} = \{U_\alpha\}_{\alpha \in A}$ be an open cover of X .

For each $n \in \mathbb{N}$, since $B_n \subseteq X = \bigcup_{\alpha \in A} U_\alpha$, we may choose $\alpha(n) \in A$ such that

$$B_n \subseteq U_{\alpha(n)}.$$

Then the collection $\{U_{\alpha(n)}\}_{n \in \mathbb{N}}$ is countable.

To see that it covers X , let $x \in X$. Since $\mathcal{B}$ is a basis, there exists n such that $x \in B_n$. By construction, $B_n \subseteq U_{\alpha(n)}$, so $x \in U_{\alpha(n)}$. Hence

$$X = \bigcup_{n=1}^{\infty} U_{\alpha(n)}.$$

Thus $\{U_{\alpha(n)}\}_{n \in \mathbb{N}}$ is a countable subcover. $\square$

Compactness

Theorem 16. *Let S be a compact subset of a Hausdorff space X . For each $x \in X \setminus S$, there exist disjoint open sets $U, V \subseteq X$ such that*

$$x \in U, \quad S \subseteq V.$$

Proof. For each $y \in S$, since X is Hausdorff, there exist disjoint open sets U_y and V_y such that

$$x \in U_y, \quad y \in V_y.$$

Then $\{V_y\}_{y \in S}$ is an open cover of S . By compactness, there exist $y_1, \dots, y_n \in S$ such that

$$S \subseteq V_{y_1} \cup \dots \cup V_{y_n} =: V.$$

Let

$$U := U_{y_1} \cap \dots \cap U_{y_n}.$$

Then U is open, $x \in U$, and $U \cap V = \emptyset$. $\square$

Corollary 2. *A compact subset of a Hausdorff space is closed.*

Proof. Let $S \subseteq X$ be compact and $x \in X \setminus S$. By the lemma, there exists an open set U containing x with $U \cap S = \emptyset$. Hence $X \setminus S$ is open, so S is closed. $\square$

Theorem 17 (Theorem 6.5). *Every compact Hausdorff space is normal.*

Proof. Let $S, T \subseteq X$ be disjoint closed sets. Since X is compact, S and T are compact. For each $x \in T$, by the lemma on separating a point from a compact set, there exist disjoint open sets U_x, V_x such that

$$x \in U_x, \quad S \subseteq V_x.$$

The family $\{U_x\}_{x \in T}$ is an open cover of T , so by compactness there exist $x_1, \dots, x_n \in T$ such that

$$T \subseteq U_{x_1} \cup \dots \cup U_{x_n} =: U.$$

Set

$$V := V_{x_1} \cap \dots \cap V_{x_n}.$$

Then U and V are open, $T \subseteq U$, $S \subseteq V$, and $U \cap V = \emptyset$. Hence X is normal. $\square$

Theorem 18 (Theorem 6.6). *Let $f : X \rightarrow Y$ be continuous, where X is compact and Y is a topological space. Then $f(X)$ is compact in Y .*

Proof. Let $\{U_\alpha\}_{\alpha \in A}$ be an open cover of $f(X)$. Then

$$X = \bigcup_{\alpha \in A} f^{-1}(U_\alpha),$$

and each $f^{-1}(U_\alpha)$ is open in X by continuity of f . Since X is compact, there exist $\alpha_1, \dots, \alpha_n \in A$ such that

$$X = f^{-1}(U_{\alpha_1}) \cup \dots \cup f^{-1}(U_{\alpha_n}).$$

Applying f , we get

$$f(X) \subseteq U_{\alpha_1} \cup \dots \cup U_{\alpha_n}.$$

Thus $\{U_{\alpha_1}, \dots, U_{\alpha_n}\}$ is a finite subcover of $f(X)$, so $f(X)$ is compact. $\square$

Theorem 19 (Theorem 6.7). *Let $f : X \rightarrow Y$ be a continuous map from a compact space X to a Hausdorff space Y . If f is one-to-one, then f is a homeomorphism of X onto $f(X)$.*

Proof. Since f is continuous and bijective onto $f(X)$, it suffices to show that $f^{-1} : f(X) \rightarrow X$ is continuous, or equivalently that $f(U)$ is open in $f(X)$ whenever U is open in X .

Let $U \subseteq X$ be open. Then $X \setminus U$ is closed in X , hence compact. By continuity, $f(X \setminus U)$ is compact in Y , and since Y is Hausdorff, it is closed in Y . Therefore it is closed in $f(X)$.

But

$$f(X \setminus U) = f(X) \setminus f(U)$$

since f is injective. Hence $f(U)$ is open in $f(X)$, and f^{-1} is continuous. Thus f is a homeomorphism onto $f(X)$. $\square$

Arzelà–Ascoli Theorem

Lemma 1. *Let X be compact, and let $(f_n) \subset C(X)$ be uniformly bounded and equicontinuous. Then there exists a subsequence (f_{n_k}) which converges uniformly on X .*

Proof. For each $m \in \mathbb{N}$ and each $x \in X$, equicontinuity gives an open neighbourhood $U_{x,m}$ such that

$$|f_n(y) - f_n(x)| < \frac{1}{m} \quad \text{for all } y \in U_{x,m}, \quad n \in \mathbb{N}.$$

By compactness, for each m there exist points $x_{m,1}, \dots, x_{m,r_m}$ such that

$$X = \bigcup_{i=1}^{r_m} U_{x_{m,i},m}.$$

Let

$$A := \bigcup_{m=1}^{\infty} \{x_{m,1}, \dots, x_{m,r_m}\}.$$

Since this is a countable union of finite sets, we may write

$$A = \{a_1, a_2, a_3, \dots\}.$$

Since (f_n) is uniformly bounded, for each j the sequence $(f_n(a_j))$ is bounded, hence admits a convergent subsequence. We now construct nested subsequences

$$(f_n) \supset (f_n^{(1)}) \supset (f_n^{(2)}) \supset (f_n^{(3)}) \supset \dots$$

such that $(f_n^{(k)})(a_k)$ converges for each k .

$$\begin{aligned} (f_n^{(1)}) &= (f_{n_1}^{(1)}, f_{n_2}^{(1)}, f_{n_3}^{(1)}, \dots), \\ (f_n^{(2)}) &= (f_{n_1}^{(2)}, f_{n_2}^{(2)}, f_{n_3}^{(2)}, \dots), \\ (f_n^{(3)}) &= (f_{n_1}^{(3)}, f_{n_2}^{(3)}, f_{n_3}^{(3)}, \dots), \\ &\vdots \end{aligned}$$

where each row is a subsequence of the previous one.

Define the diagonal subsequence by $g_k := f_{n_k}^{(k)}$. Fix j . For all $k \geq j$, the term g_k lies in the subsequence $(f_n^{(j)})$, hence $(g_k(a_j))$ converges. Thus $(g_k(a_j))$ converges for every $a_j \in A$.

We now show that (g_k) is uniformly Cauchy. Let $\varepsilon > 0$ and choose m such that $\frac{3}{m} < \varepsilon$. From the finite cover

$$X = \bigcup_{i=1}^{r_m} U_{x_{m,i}, m},$$

and since each $x_{m,i} \in A$, the sequences $(g_k(x_{m,i}))$ converge. Hence there exists N such that for all $k, \ell \geq N$,

$$|g_k(x_{m,i}) - g_\ell(x_{m,i})| < \frac{1}{m} \quad \text{for } i = 1, \dots, r_m.$$

Now let $x \in X$. Choose i such that $x \in U_{x_{m,i}, m}$. Then

$$\begin{aligned} |g_k(x) - g_\ell(x)| &\leq |g_k(x) - g_k(x_{m,i})| + |g_k(x_{m,i}) - g_\ell(x_{m,i})| + |g_\ell(x_{m,i}) - g_\ell(x)| \\ &< \frac{1}{m} + \frac{1}{m} + \frac{1}{m} = \frac{3}{m} \\ &< \varepsilon \end{aligned}$$

Since x arbitrary (g_k) is uniformly Cauchy, hence converges uniformly on X . $\square$

Theorem 20 (Arzelà–Ascoli). *Let X be a compact topological space and let $\mathcal{F} \subset C(X)$. Then $\overline{\mathcal{F}}$ is compact in $(C(X), \|\cdot\|_\infty) \Leftrightarrow \mathcal{F}$ is uniformly bounded and equicontinuous.*

Proof. $(\Leftarrow)$ Assume $\mathcal{F}$ is uniformly bounded and equicontinuous. Then by the lemma, every sequence in $\mathcal{F}$ has a uniformly convergent subsequence, hence $\overline{\mathcal{F}}$ sequentially compact.

$(\Rightarrow)$ Assume $\mathcal{F}$ is precompact. Then $\mathcal{F}$ is totally bounded.

Uniform boundedness: For $\varepsilon = 1$, there exist $f_1, \dots, f_n$ such that

$$\mathcal{F} \subset \bigcup_{k=1}^n B(f_k, 1).$$

Hence $\|f\|_\infty \leq 1 + \max_k \|f_k\|_\infty$ for all $f \in \mathcal{F}$.

Equicontinuity: Let $\varepsilon > 0$ and choose $f_1, \dots, f_n$ such that

$$\mathcal{F} \subset \bigcup_{k=1}^n B(f_k, \varepsilon).$$

Fix $x \in X$. Since each f_k is continuous, there exists a neighbourhood U of x such that

$$|f_k(y) - f_k(x)| < \varepsilon \quad \forall y \in U, \quad k = 1, \dots, n.$$

If $f \in \mathcal{F}$, choose k with $\|f - f_k\|_\infty < \varepsilon$. Then

$$|f(y) - f(x)| \leq |f(y) - f_k(y)| + |f_k(y) - f_k(x)| + |f_k(x) - f(x)| < \varepsilon + \varepsilon + \varepsilon = 3\varepsilon.$$

□

Locally Compact

Theorem 21 (One-point compactification). *Let X be a locally compact Hausdorff space. Then there exists a space $Y = X \cup \{\infty\}$ and a topology on Y such that:*

- Y is compact and Hausdorff,
- the subspace topology on X coincides with the original topology,
- the topology is uniquely determined.

The open sets in Y are:

- all open sets of X ,
- all sets of the form $U \cup \{\infty\}$ where $X \setminus U$ is compact in X .

Connectedness

Theorem 22 (Theorem 8.1). *Let f be a continuous function from a connected topological space X to a topological space Y . Then $f(X)$ is connected.*

Proof. Let $E \subseteq f(X)$ be both open and closed in $f(X)$. Then $f^{-1}(E)$ is both open and closed in X since f is continuous.

Because X is connected, we must have either $f^{-1}(E) = \emptyset$ or $f^{-1}(E) = X$.

In the first case, $E = \emptyset$. In the second case, $E = f(X)$. Hence $f(X)$ is connected. □

Theorem 23 (Theorem 8.2). *Let $\{E_\alpha\}_{\alpha \in A}$ be a family of connected subsets of a topological space X such that $E_\alpha \cap E_\beta \neq \emptyset$ for all α, β . Then $\bigcup_{\alpha \in A} E_\alpha$ is connected.*

Proof. Let $E = \bigcup_{\alpha} E_\alpha$ and let $F \subseteq E$ be clopen with $F \neq \emptyset$. Pick $x \in F \cap E_{\alpha_0}$. Since E_{α_0} is connected, $F \cap E_{\alpha_0} = E_{\alpha_0}$, so $E_{\alpha_0} \subseteq F$.

For any β , $F \cap E_\beta$ is clopen in E_β and contains $E_{\alpha_0} \cap E_\beta \neq \emptyset$, hence $E_\beta \subseteq F$. Thus $F = E$. □

Definition 16. *Let X be a topological space and $x \in X$. The connected component of x , denoted $C(x)$, is the union of all connected subsets of X that contain x .*

Theorem 24. $C(x)$ is connected and is the largest connected subset of X containing x .

Theorem 25 (Theorem 8.3). Two connected components of X either coincide or are disjoint. Hence, the connected components form a partition of X .

Theorem 26 (Theorem 8.4). Any interval in $\mathbb{R}$ (closed, open, or half-open; finite or infinite) is connected.

Proof. It suffices to show that $[0, 1]$ is connected. Let $E \subseteq [0, 1]$ be clopen and assume $E \neq \emptyset$. Set

$$t = \sup E.$$

Since E is closed, $t \in E$. If $t < 1$, then since E is open, there exists $\varepsilon > 0$ such that $(t, t + \varepsilon) \subseteq E$, contradicting the definition of t . Hence $E = [0, 1]$. $\square$

Path Connectedness

Theorem 27 (Lemma 9.1). The relation “there is a path in X from x to y ” is an equivalence relation on X .

Proof. We verify the three properties:

(i) **Reflexive:** For any $x \in X$, the constant map

$$\alpha : [0, 1] \rightarrow X, \quad \alpha(s) = x$$

is a path from x to x .

(ii) **Symmetric:** If α is a path from x to y , then

$$\beta : [0, 1] \rightarrow X, \quad \beta(s) = \alpha(1 - s)$$

is a path from y to x .

(iii) **Transitive:** If α is a path from x to y and β is a path from y to z , define

$$\gamma(s) = \begin{cases} \alpha(2s), & 0 \leq s \leq \frac{1}{2}, \\ \beta(2s - 1), & \frac{1}{2} \leq s \leq 1. \end{cases}$$

Then γ is a path from x to z .

Hence the relation is an equivalence relation. $\square$

Theorem 28 (Theorem 9.2). Every path-connected space is connected.

Proof. Fix $x_0 \in X$. For each $x \in X$, let $\gamma_x : [0, 1] \rightarrow X$ be a path from x_0 to x . Since $[0, 1]$ is connected and γ_x is continuous, $\gamma_x([0, 1])$ is connected. Also, each $\gamma_x([0, 1])$ contains x_0 . Hence

$$X = \bigcup_{x \in X} \gamma_x([0, 1])$$

is a union of connected subsets with a common point, so X is connected. $\square$

Corollary 3 (Corollary 9.3). Each connected component of a topological space is a union of path components.

Proof. A path component is path-connected, hence connected by the theorem. Therefore each path component is contained in some connected component. It follows that a connected component is the union of all path components contained in it. $\square$

Finite Product Spaces

Theorem 29 (10.1). *Let X be the product of the topological spaces $X_1, \dots, X_n$, and let π_j be the projection of X onto X_j . The product topology for X is the smallest topology for which each of the projections π_j is continuous.*

Proof. Let $\mathcal{T}$ be another topology for X such that the projections π_j are $\mathcal{T}$ -continuous. Let $U_1, \dots, U_n$ be open subsets of $X_1, \dots, X_n$, respectively. Then each $\pi_j^{-1}(U_j)$ belongs to $\mathcal{T}$. Since

$$\pi_1^{-1}(U_1) \cap \dots \cap \pi_n^{-1}(U_n) = U_1 \times \dots \times U_n,$$

the basic set $U_1 \times \dots \times U_n$ belongs to $\mathcal{T}$ and $\mathcal{T}$ includes the product topology. $\square$

Theorem 30 (10.2). *Let $X = X_1 \times \dots \times X_n$ be the product of the topological spaces $X_1, \dots, X_n$. Then each projection π_j is an open map of X onto X_j .*

Proof. If $U = U_1 \times \dots \times U_n$ is a nonempty basic open set, then $\pi_j(U) = U_j$ is open. Since maps preserve unions, the image of any open set is open. $\square$

Theorem 31 (10.3). *Let E be a topological space and let f be a function from E to the product*

$$X = X_1 \times \dots \times X_n.$$

Then f is continuous if and only if each $\pi_j \circ f$ is continuous, $1 \leq j \leq n$.

Proof. If f is continuous, then $\pi_j \circ f$ is also continuous since the composition of continuous functions is continuous.

Conversely, suppose that each $\pi_j \circ f$ is continuous. Let

$$U = U_1 \times \dots \times U_n$$

be a basic open set in X . Then

$$f^{-1}(U) = (\pi_1 \circ f)^{-1}(U_1) \cap \dots \cap (\pi_n \circ f)^{-1}(U_n)$$

is a finite intersection of open sets and hence is open. Since inverses of functions preserve unions, the inverse image of any open set is open. Hence f is continuous. $\square$

Theorem 32 (10.4). *If $X_1, \dots, X_n$ are Hausdorff spaces, then $X = X_1 \times \dots \times X_n$ is Hausdorff.*

Proof. Let $x = (x_1, \dots, x_n)$ and $y = (y_1, \dots, y_n)$ be distinct points of X . Choose an index j such that $x_j \neq y_j$. Let U_j and V_j be disjoint open neighborhoods of x_j and y_j , respectively, in X_j . Then $\pi_j^{-1}(U_j)$ and $\pi_j^{-1}(V_j)$ are disjoint open neighborhoods of x and y , respectively, in X . $\square$

Theorem 33 (10.5). *If X_j is a path-connected topological space, $1 \leq j \leq n$, then $X = X_1 \times \dots \times X_n$ is path-connected.*

Proof. Let $x = (x_1, \dots, x_n)$ and $y = (y_1, \dots, y_n)$ be points of X . For $1 \leq j \leq n$, let

$$\gamma_j : [0, 1] \rightarrow X_j$$

be a path from x_j to y_j . Then the path

$$\gamma : [0, 1] \rightarrow X, \quad \gamma(t) = (\gamma_1(t), \dots, \gamma_n(t)), \quad 0 \leq t \leq 1,$$

is a path from x to y . Hence X is path-connected. $\square$

Theorem 34 (10.6). *If X_j is a connected topological space, $1 \leq j \leq n$, then $X = X_1 \times \cdots \times X_n$ is also connected.*

Proof. Let E be a closed and open subset of X . Replacing E by its complement, if necessary, we can assume that $E \neq \emptyset$. We must show that $E = X$.

Let $z = (z_1, \dots, z_n) \in E$ and let $y = (y_1, \dots, y_n) \in X$. The intersection

$$E \cap (X_1 \times \{z_2\} \times \cdots \times \{z_n\})$$

is a relatively open and closed subset of the coordinate slice, which includes z . Since X_1 is connected, so is the coordinate slice. It follows that E must include the entire coordinate slice. In particular,

$$(y_1, z_2, \dots, z_n) \in E.$$

Now we repeat this argument in the second coordinate and continue until eventually we conclude that $y \in E$. Since $y \in X$ is arbitrary, we obtain $E = X$. $\square$

Lemma 2 (10.7). *Let Y be a topological space and let $\mathcal{B}$ be a base for the topology of Y . If every open cover of Y by sets in $\mathcal{B}$ has a finite subcover, then Y is compact.*

Proof. Let $\{U_\beta\}_{\beta \in B}$ be an open cover of Y . For each $y \in Y$, choose $V_y \in \mathcal{B}$ and an index β such that

$$y \in V_y \subset U_\beta.$$

The family $\{V_y : y \in Y\}$ forms an open cover of Y by sets in $\mathcal{B}$. By hypothesis, there exist a finite number of the V_y 's that cover Y . Since each of these V_y 's is contained in at least one of the U_β 's, we obtain a finite number of the U_β 's that cover Y . Hence Y is compact. $\square$

Theorem 35 (10.8, Tychonoff's Theorem, finite case). *If $X_1, \dots, X_n$ are compact spaces, then $X_1 \times \cdots \times X_n$ is compact.*

Proof. It suffices to prove the theorem in the case where $n = 2$, and so we consider only

$$X = X_1 \times X_2.$$

Let $\mathcal{C}$ be a cover of $X_1 \times X_2$ by rectangular open sets of the form $U \times V$, where U is open in X_1 and V is open in X_2 . By Lemma 10.7, it suffices to show that the cover $\mathcal{C}$ has a finite subcover.

Fix $z \in X_2$. The coordinate slice $X_1 \times \{z\}$ is compact. Hence there are a finite number of sets

$$U_1 \times V_1, \dots, U_m \times V_m \in \mathcal{C}$$

that cover $X_1 \times \{z\}$. We can assume that $z \in V_j$ for all j , $1 \leq j \leq m$. Then

$$V(z) = V_1 \cap \cdots \cap V_m$$

is an open neighborhood of z in X_2 . Furthermore,

$$\pi_2^{-1}(V(z))$$

is covered by a finite number of sets in $\mathcal{C}$, namely the sets

$$U_j \times V_j, \quad 1 \leq j \leq m.$$

The sets $\{V(z) : z \in X_2\}$ form an open cover of X_2 . Since X_2 is compact, there exist

$$z_1, \dots, z_k \in X_2$$

such that

$$X_2 = V(z_1) \cup \dots \cup V(z_k).$$

Then

$$X = \pi_2^{-1}(V(z_1)) \cup \dots \cup \pi_2^{-1}(V(z_k)).$$

Since each $\pi_2^{-1}(V(z_j))$ can be covered by a finite number of sets in $\mathcal{C}$, and since the aggregate of these sets covers X , $\mathcal{C}$ has a finite subcover. $\square$

Axiom of Choice & Zorn's Lemma

Definition 17 (Axiom of Choice). *Let $\{U_\alpha\}_{\alpha \in A} \subset \mathcal{P}(X)$ be a family of non-empty sets indexed by some set A . Then there exists a function $f : A \rightarrow X$ such that $f(\alpha) \in U_\alpha$ for all $\alpha \in A$.*

Definition 18 (Partially Ordered Set). *A set P together with a relation $\leq$ is called a partially ordered set if for all $x, y, z \in P$:*

- $x \leq x$ (reflexivity),
- if $x \leq y$ and $y \leq x$, then $x = y$ (antisymmetry),
- if $x \leq y$ and $y \leq z$, then $x \leq z$ (transitivity).

Definition 19 (Totally Ordered Subset). *A subset $C \subset P$ is called totally ordered (or a chain) if for all $x, y \in C$, either $x \leq y$ or $y \leq x$.*

Definition 20 (Upper Bound). *Let $C \subset P$. An element $u \in P$ is called an upper bound of C if*

$$x \leq u \quad \text{for all } x \in C.$$

Definition 21 (Maximal Element). *An element $m \in P$ is called maximal if there is no $x \in P$ such that*

$$m < x.$$

Lemma 3 (Zorn's Lemma). *Let P be a partially ordered set. If each totally ordered subset of P has an upper bound, then P has a maximal element.*

Infinite Product Spaces

Theorem 36 (12.3, Alexander Subbase Theorem). *Let Y be a topological space and let $\mathcal{S}$ be a subbase for the topology of Y . If every open cover of Y by sets in $\mathcal{S}$ has a finite subcover, then Y is compact.*

Proof. Let $\mathcal{C}$ be an open cover of Y such that no finite subfamily of $\mathcal{C}$ covers Y . It suffices to show that there exists a cover of Y by sets in $\mathcal{S}$ that has no finite subcover.

Consider families $\mathcal{B}$ of open subsets of Y such that $\mathcal{C} \subset \mathcal{B}$ and such that no finite collection of sets in $\mathcal{B}$ covers Y . The aggregate of such families forms a partially ordered set, with the ordering of inclusion. Let $\{\mathcal{B}_\beta\}_{\beta \in B}$ be a totally ordered subset of $\mathcal{B}$. Let $\mathcal{B}_0$

be the family of subsets of Y that is the union of the $\mathcal{B}_\beta$'s. We claim that $\mathcal{B}_0 \in \mathcal{B}$, that is, that no finite collection of sets in $\mathcal{B}_0$ covers Y . Indeed, any finite collection of sets in $\mathcal{B}_0$ is included in one of the $\mathcal{B}_\beta$'s, because of the total ordering, and no finite family of sets in any $\mathcal{B}_\beta$ covers Y . (Compare this argument with the corresponding proof that every cover has a basis.) Evidently $\mathcal{B}_0$ is an upper bound for $\{\mathcal{B}_\beta\}$. Hence the hypothesis of Zorn's Lemma are met. By Zorn's Lemma, there is a maximal element $\mathcal{B}_0$ in $\mathcal{B}$.

It suffices now to show that the family $\mathcal{S}$ covers Y . Indeed, by the defining property of $\mathcal{B}_0$, no finite subfamily of $\mathcal{B}_0$ covers Y .

Let $x \in Y$. It suffices to show that there exists $V \in \mathcal{S}$ such that $x \in V$. Choose $U \in \mathcal{B}_0$ such that $x \in U$. Since $\mathcal{S}$ is a subbase, there exist $V_1, \dots, V_n \in \mathcal{S}$ such that

$$x \in V_1 \cap \dots \cap V_n \subset U.$$

Suppose that no V_j belongs to $\mathcal{B}_0$. Because of the maximality of $\mathcal{B}_0$, there exist for each j a finite number of open sets

$$W_{j1}, \dots, W_{jk_j} \in \mathcal{B}_0$$

such that

$$W_{j1} \cup \dots \cup W_{jk_j} \cup V_j$$

covers Y . Otherwise we could add V_j to $\mathcal{B}_0$, contradicting the maximality of $\mathcal{B}_0$. Then

$$(V_1 \cap \dots \cap V_n) \cup \bigcup_{j=1}^n \bigcup_{i=1}^{k_j} W_{ji}$$

covers Y . Hence

$$U \cup \bigcup_{j=1}^n \bigcup_{i=1}^{k_j} W_{ji}$$

covers Y . This gives a finite cover of Y by sets in $\mathcal{B}_0$, contradicting the fact that $\mathcal{B}_0$ belongs to $\mathcal{B}$. We conclude that some V_j belongs to $\mathcal{B}_0$, and we take this V_j to cover x . $\square$

Theorem 37 (12.4, Tychonoff's Theorem). *Any product of compact spaces is compact.*

Proof. Let $X = \prod_{\alpha} X_{\alpha}$, where each X_{α} is compact. Let $\mathcal{S}$ be a family of subbasic sets of the form

$$\pi_{\alpha}^{-1}(U_{\alpha}),$$

where U_{α} is an open subset of X_{α} . Suppose that no finite subfamily of $\mathcal{S}$ covers X . In view of the Alexander Subbase Theorem, it suffices to show that $\mathcal{S}$ does not cover X .

Fix an index β and consider the subbasic sets in $\mathcal{S}$ of the form $\pi_{\beta}^{-1}(V)$, where V is an open subset of X_{β} . The aggregate of such open sets V cannot cover X_{β} . Otherwise we could extract a finite subcover $\{V_1, \dots, V_m\}$ of X_{β} , and the corresponding sets $\pi_{\beta}^{-1}(V_1), \dots, \pi_{\beta}^{-1}(V_m)$ would cover X , contradicting our hypothesis on $\mathcal{S}$. Choose a point $x_{\beta} \in X_{\beta}$ such that x_{β} is not included in the union of the V 's.

The various choices x_{β} determine a point $x \in \prod_{\alpha} X_{\alpha}$, which is evidently not included in any of the sets in $\mathcal{S}$. $\square$

Stone–Weierstrass Approximation Theorem

Definition 22 (Lattice operations). For functions $f, g \in C(X, \mathbb{R})$, define the join and meet by

$$(f \vee g)(x) = \max\{f(x), g(x)\}, \quad (f \wedge g)(x) = \min\{f(x), g(x)\}.$$

A subset $L \subset C(X, \mathbb{R})$ is called a lattice if for all $f, g \in L$,

$$f \vee g \in L \quad \text{and} \quad f \wedge g \in L.$$

If L is also a subspace (or subalgebra) of $C(X, \mathbb{R})$, then L is called a sublattice.

Lemma 4. Let X be a compact Hausdorff space with more than one point, and let L be a closed sublattice of $C(X, \mathbb{R})$ with the following property: for any distinct $x, y \in X$ and any $a, b \in \mathbb{R}$, there exists $h \in L$ such that $h(x) = a, h(y) = b$. Then $L = C(X, \mathbb{R})$.

Proof. Let $f \in C(X, \mathbb{R})$ and let $\varepsilon > 0$. Since L is closed in $C(X, \mathbb{R})$, it is enough to find $g \in L$ such that

$$f(z) - \varepsilon < g(z) < f(z) + \varepsilon \quad \text{for all } z \in X.$$

Fix $x \in X$. For each $y \neq x$, by hypothesis there exists $f_y \in L$ such that

$$f_y(x) = f(x), \quad f_y(y) = f(y).$$

Consider the open set

$$G_y = \{z \in X : f_y(z) < f(z) + \varepsilon\}.$$

Since $x, y \in G_y$, the family $\{G_y : y \neq x\}$ is an open cover of X . By compactness, choose $y_1, \dots, y_n$ such that

$$X = G_{y_1} \cup \dots \cup G_{y_n}.$$

Set

$$g_x = f_{y_1} \wedge \dots \wedge f_{y_n}.$$

Because L is a sublattice, $g_x \in L$. Also,

$$g_x(x) = f(x),$$

and for every $z \in X$ there exists some j with $z \in G_{y_j}$, hence

$$g_x(z) \leq f_{y_j}(z) < f(z) + \varepsilon.$$

Now define

$$H_x = \{z \in X : g_x(z) > f(z) - \varepsilon\}.$$

Since $g_x(x) = f(x)$, we have $x \in H_x$, so the sets $\{H_x : x \in X\}$ form an open cover of X . By compactness, choose $x_1, \dots, x_m$ such that

$$X = H_{x_1} \cup \dots \cup H_{x_m}.$$

Finally set

$$g = g_{x_1} \vee \dots \vee g_{x_m}.$$

Again $g \in L$. For any $z \in X$, since $z \in H_{x_i}$ for some i ,

$$g(z) \geq g_{x_i}(z) > f(z) - \varepsilon,$$

while for every i we already know $g_{x_i}(z) < f(z) + \varepsilon$, so

$$g(z) < f(z) + \varepsilon.$$

Thus

$$f(z) - \varepsilon < g(z) < f(z) + \varepsilon \quad \text{for all } z \in X.$$

Hence $\|f - g\|_\infty < \varepsilon$. Since L is closed and f can be uniformly approximated by elements of L , it follows that $f \in L$. Therefore $L = C(X, \mathbb{R})$. $\square$

Lemma 5. *Let X be a topological space. Then every closed subalgebra $A \subset C(X, \mathbb{R})$ is also a closed sublattice of $C(X, \mathbb{R})$.*

Proof. It suffices to show that if $f \in A$, then $|f| \in A$. Indeed, for $f, g \in A$, the lattice operations can be written as

$$f \vee g = \frac{f + g + |f - g|}{2}, \quad f \wedge g = \frac{f + g - |f - g|}{2}.$$

Since A is a subalgebra, it is closed under addition and scalar multiplication, so if $|f - g| \in A$, then $f \vee g, f \wedge g \in A$. Thus it remains to prove that $|f| \in A$ for every $f \in A$.

Let $f \in A$ and $\varepsilon > 0$. Since f is continuous and X is arbitrary, the function $|t|$ on the interval $[-\|f\|_\infty, \|f\|_\infty]$ can be uniformly approximated by polynomials. Hence there exists a polynomial p such that

$$||t| - p(t)| < \varepsilon \quad \text{for all } t \in [-\|f\|_\infty, \|f\|_\infty].$$

By adjusting the constant term, we may assume $p(0) = 0$.

Since A is an algebra, $p(f) \in A$. Moreover, for all $x \in X$,

$$||f(x)| - p(f(x))| < \varepsilon,$$

so $\||f| - p(f)\|_\infty < \varepsilon$. Since A is closed in $C(X, \mathbb{R})$, it follows that $|f| \in A$.

Therefore A is closed under $|\cdot|$, and hence under $\vee$ and $\wedge$, so A is a sublattice. $\square$

Theorem 38 (Real Stone–Weierstrass Theorem). *Let X be a compact Hausdorff space, and let A be a closed subalgebra of $C(X, \mathbb{R})$ which separates points and contains a non-zero constant function. Then $A = C(X, \mathbb{R})$.*

Proof. If X has only one point, then $C(X, \mathbb{R})$ contains only constant functions; and since A contains a non-zero constant function and is an algebra, it contains all constant functions and equals $C(X, \mathbb{R})$. We may thus assume that X has more than one point.

By the preceding lemmas, it suffices to show that if x and y are distinct points of X , and if a and b are any two real numbers, then there exists a function $f \in A$ such that

$$f(x) = a \quad \text{and} \quad f(y) = b.$$

Since A separates points, there exists a function $g \in A$ such that $g(x) \neq g(y)$. Define

$$f(z) = a \frac{g(z) - g(y)}{g(x) - g(y)} + b \frac{g(x) - g(z)}{g(x) - g(y)}.$$

Then $f \in A$ and clearly satisfies $f(x) = a$ and $f(y) = b$. Hence $A = C(X, \mathbb{R})$. $\square$

Theorem 39 (Complex Stone–Weierstrass Theorem). *Let X be a compact Hausdorff space, and let A be a closed subalgebra of $C(X, \mathbb{C})$ which separates points, contains a non-zero constant function, and is closed under complex conjugation, i.e. $f \in A \implies \bar{f} \in A$. Then $A = C(X, \mathbb{C})$.*

Proof. Let

$$B := \{f \in A : f(X) \subset \mathbb{R}\}$$

be the set of real-valued functions in A . We claim that B is a closed subalgebra of $C(X, \mathbb{R})$.

First, if $f, g \in B$ and $\alpha \in \mathbb{R}$, then $f + g$, αf , and fg are again real-valued and belong to A since A is a subalgebra. Hence B is a subalgebra of $C(X, \mathbb{R})$.

Also, B is closed in $C(X, \mathbb{R})$: if (f_n) is a sequence in B converging uniformly to $f \in C(X, \mathbb{R})$, then $f_n \rightarrow f$ also in $C(X, \mathbb{C})$. Since A is closed in $C(X, \mathbb{C})$ and each $f_n \in A$, it follows that $f \in A$. As f is real-valued, we get $f \in B$.

Next we show that B separates points. Let $x, y \in X$ with $x \neq y$. Since A separates points, there exists $f \in A$ such that

$$f(x) \neq f(y).$$

Write

$$f = u + iv,$$

where

$$u = \Re f = \frac{f + \bar{f}}{2}, \quad v = \Im f = \frac{f - \bar{f}}{2i}.$$

Because A is closed under conjugation and is a subalgebra, we have $u, v \in A$. Since u and v are real-valued, actually $u, v \in B$.

Now if both $u(x) = u(y)$ and $v(x) = v(y)$ held, then

$$f(x) = u(x) + iv(x) = u(y) + iv(y) = f(y),$$

a contradiction. Hence either $u(x) \neq u(y)$ or $v(x) \neq v(y)$, so B separates points.

Since A contains a non-zero constant function, say $c \neq 0$, and is closed under conjugation, it also contains $\bar{c}$. Therefore

$$\frac{c + \bar{c}}{2} = \Re(c) \quad \text{and} \quad \frac{c - \bar{c}}{2i} = \Im(c)$$

belong to B , and at least one of them is non-zero. Thus B contains a non-zero real constant function.

Therefore B is a closed subalgebra of $C(X, \mathbb{R})$ which separates points and contains a non-zero constant function. By the real Stone–Weierstrass theorem,

$$B = C(X, \mathbb{R}).$$

It remains to show that $A = C(X, \mathbb{C})$. Let $f \in C(X, \mathbb{C})$. Write

$$f = u + iv,$$

where $u, v \in C(X, \mathbb{R})$. Since $B = C(X, \mathbb{R})$, we have $u, v \in B \subset A$. Because A is closed under multiplication by complex scalars, $iv \in A$, and hence $f = u + iv \in A$. Thus every $f \in C(X, \mathbb{C})$ belongs to $A \implies A = C(X, \mathbb{C})$. $\square$